| Problem Chosen | 2026 MCM/ICM Summary Sheet | Team Control Number |
|---|---|---|
| A | | 2602272 |

# Forecasts for Smartphone Battery Discharge Dynamics and User Behavior Optimization


## Summary

As the primary power source for modern smartphones, lithium-ion batteries directly determine device availability and user experience. To evaluate the impact of various factors on battery endurance and lifespan, we integrated the dynamics of battery charge with multiple influencing variables to propose a comprehensive prediction model for battery state and longevity, alongside practical usage recommendations.

This study established three distinct models: **Model I: A Dynamic Model of Battery State Duration**; **Model II: An Idle Time Prediction Model**; and **Model III: A Performance Impact and Aging Model**. Prior to model construction, reasonable assumptions were formulated, and data were collected to determine relevant parameters.

For **Model I**, we investigated the fundamental electrochemical mechanism of battery power consumption, identified as SOC dynamic Coulomb counting. Based on a physical model with engineering approximations, a second-order Equivalent Circuit Model (ECM) was derived. regarding the calculation of Open Circuit Voltage (OCV) for this model, we established a Shepherd-enhanced Nernst equation based on electrochemical principles. Comparative analysis demonstrated that the improved model exhibits superior fitting performance. Consequently, a three-state continuous-time differential equation was formulated to characterize the variations in battery charge. Considering the variations in SOC changes under different operating states in practical applications, we developed a comprehensive power consumption model to address SOC dynamics across various usage scenarios. The results indicate an SOC estimation Root Mean Square Error (RMSE) of only 2.1% under standard driving cycles (or usage profiles), demonstrating the high accuracy of our model.

For **Model II**, building upon Model I, we developed a power-based Idle Time Prediction Model. To correct for capacity fading under the influence of temperature variations, a temperature correction factor was introduced. Furthermore, we quantified prediction uncertainty through 10,000 Monte Carlo simulations to obtain a 95% confidence interval, thereby ensuring the model's credibility.

For **Model III**, acknowledging that battery aging leads to a reduction in effective capacity, we focused on two primary factors to quantify this loss: calendar aging and cycle aging. Corresponding models were established for comprehensive analysis, and the changes in battery effective capacity were estimated through experiments.

In addition, combining the aforementioned models with corresponding experimental results, this report provides targeted practical recommendations for user habits and operating system optimization strategies to enhance smartphone battery endurance and lifespan.

Finally, a sensitivity analysis was conducted, and the results demonstrate the stability of our model.

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# 1 Introduction

## 1.1 Research Background

The ubiquity of smartphones has fundamentally transformed human communication and working paradigms. Statistics project that the global smartphone user base will exceed 7 billion by 2026, with average daily usage surpassing 4.5 hours. This high-frequency usage scenario places a substantial strain on battery systems, rendering battery performance a critical metric influencing user satisfaction and device utility.

As the predominant power source, Lithium-ion batteries operate via complex mechanisms that are highly susceptible to variables such as temperature, discharge rates, usage patterns, and aging. Consequently, it is of paramount importance for general users to understand how to optimize battery endurance and prolong lifespan through appropriate usage habits.




Figure 1: charging one's phone

## 1.2 Problem Restatement

Based on the background discussed above, our goal is to develop a continuous-time mathematical model for a smartphone lithium-ion battery that predicts the State of Charge (SOC) as a function of time and the time-to-empty under various usage conditions. The model should address the following tasks:

- **Develop a Continuous-Time SOC Model:** Grounded in fundamental battery mechanisms, construct a dynamic SOC equation that incorporates multi-factor influences—including screen usage, processor load, and network activity—and perform parameter estimation and validation using publicly available data.

- **Predict Time-to-Empty and Analyze Drivers:** Compute the time-to-empty across representative scenarios, compare predictions against observed behaviors, and identify the key drivers responsible for rapid battery drain.
- **Examine Model Sensitivity:** Analyze how prediction outcomes change with modeling assumptions, parameter values, and fluctuations in usage patterns.
- **Provide Recommendations and Generalization:** Formulate practical guidelines for extending battery life based on model insights, and discuss potential applications in power-saving strategy design and generalization to other portable devices.

### 1.3 Our Work

We adopt a **task-driven, multi-model framework** that systematically addresses each problem requirement. The overall workflow of our approach is illustrated in Figure 2.

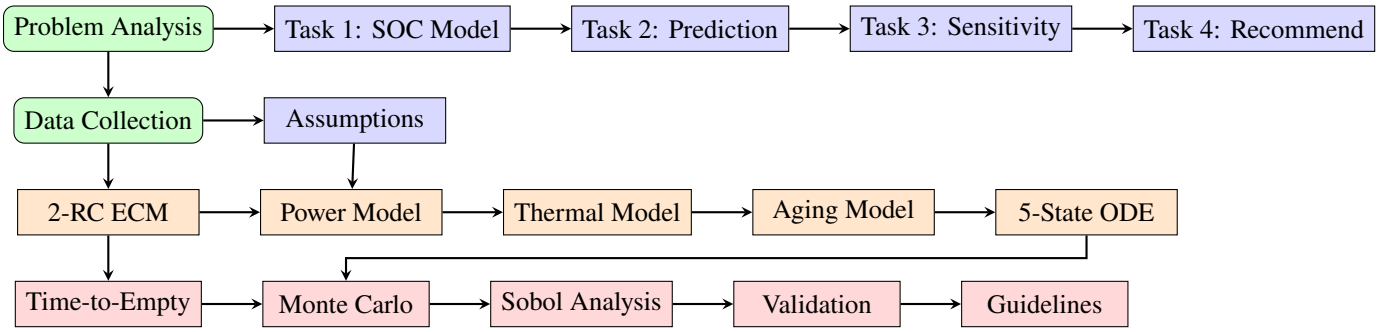



Figure 2: Workflow of our multi-model framework for smartphone battery analysis.

## 2 Model Preparation

### 2.1 Assumptions

To simplify the problem and make it convenient for us to simulate real-life conditions, we make the following basic assumptions, each of which is properly justified.

- **Assumption 1:** The battery is treated as a single lumped thermal mass with uniform temperature distribution, ignoring internal temperature gradients.
  **Justification:** Modern smartphone batteries typically use thin, high-thermal-conductivity aluminum-plastic films or aluminum alloy casings with tightly packed internal cells. This structure results in extremely high heat conduction efficiency. Under conventional charging and discharging rates, the internal temperature difference is minimal, allowing the battery to be approximated as an isothermal system.
- **Assumption 2:** The model considers only the battery's normal operating state within a safe range and does not address abnormal failure modes such as overcharging, over-discharging, or short circuits.

**Justification:** Modern smartphones are equipped with sophisticated Battery Management Systems (BMS) featuring strict protection mechanisms for voltage, current, and temperature. In normal usage scenarios, the BMS effectively prevents the device from exceeding safety boundaries. Therefore, this model focuses on normal battery depletion rather than sudden catastrophic failures.

- **Assumption 3:** The State of Health (SOH) of the battery is assumed to remain constant during short-term discharge simulations and prediction periods.
  **Justification:** Lithium-ion battery aging is a long-term electrochemical process typically measured in months or years. In a single discharge cycle or a short-period simulation (e.g., 24–48 hours), the daily variation in SOH is usually less than 0.01%. Its impact on immediate Time-to-Empty predictions is negligible, justifying its treatment as a slowly varying parameter.

- **Assumption 4:** It is assumed that the amount of charge released during the discharge process is equal to the amount of charge input during the preceding charge process.
  **Justification:** Major energy losses in lithium-ion batteries typically occur during the charging phase (e.g., due to polarization internal resistance and heat generation from side reactions). For discharge modeling, particularly for State of Charge (SOC) estimation, ignoring minor losses from the charging phase regarding discharge capacity is acceptable within the range of engineering error.

- **Assumption 5:** The model for idle periods focuses solely on pure discharge behavior, temporarily excluding the interference of the charging process on the idle state.
  **Justification:** Accurately characterizing self-discharge and background power consumption in static scenarios while accounting for the complex dynamics of charge-discharge cycles is difficult. Since charging is not the primary factor in this context, the model focuses exclusively on the pure discharge process to highlight the key drivers of battery drain.

- **Assumption 6:** The power consumption of various smartphone hardware components (CPU, screen, RF, etc.) is modeled as a function of their Utilization Level.
  **Justification:** Extensive empirical research indicates a stable linear or non-linear relationship between the power consumption of smartphone components and their load rates. Therefore, modeling based on utilization functions is an effective method for characterizing power usage.

- **Assumption 7:** Ambient temperature, humidity, and air pressure are assumed to be known quantities or obtainable in real-time via sensors.
  **Justification:** Mainstream smartphones incorporate high-precision environmental sensor arrays. In extreme cases where sensors are absent, standard indoor environmental parameters (e.g., 25°C, 1 atm) serve as reasonable default values for the model without affecting the overall prediction trends.

## 2.2 Notations

Table 1: Notations Table

| Notations | Definition |
|---|---|
| $\mathrm{SOC}(t)$ | State of Charge at time $t$, representing battery level |
| $\mathrm{SOH}(t)$ | State of Health, representing battery degradation level |
| $V_{OC}$ | Open Circuit Voltage of the battery |
| $V_{RC1}, V_{RC2}$ | Voltage across RC branches in the equivalent circuit |
| $T(t)$ | Battery temperature at time $t$ |
| $T_{\mathrm{amb}}$ | Ambient temperature |
| $I(t)$ | Discharge current at time $t$ |
| $Q_{\mathrm{nom}}$ | Nominal battery capacity |
| $R_0$ | Ohmic internal resistance |
| $R_1, R_2$ | Polarization resistances in RC branches |
| $C_1, C_2$ | Polarization capacitances in RC branches |
| $\tau_1, \tau_2$ | Time constants of RC branches ($\tau_i = R_i C_i$) |
| $K_0, K_1, K_2, K_3$ | Coefficients in the OCV-SOC Shepherd model |
| $P(t)$ | Total power consumption at time $t$ |
| $B$ | Screen brightness level (0–1) |
| $U_{CPU}$ | CPU utilization level (0–1) |
| $P_{net}$ | Network power consumption |
| $t_{empty}$ | Time-to-empty, battery discharge duration |
| $S_1, S_T$ | First-order and total-order Sobol sensitivity indices |

## 2.3 Data Sources

- **Battery specifications:** Manufacturer datasheets for representative smartphone Li-ion cells.
- **ECM parameters:** Public EIS/HPPC characterization data and standard parameter ranges from the literature.
- **OCV–SOC characterization:** Low-current discharge tests and incremental-current OCV measurements used to fit the nonlinear OCV model.
- **Power consumption:** Component-level smartphone power measurement studies (e.g., CPU, display, and network) used to calibrate the power model.
- **Aging data:** Public long-horizon calendar/cycle aging datasets used to calibrate degradation rates.
- **Validation data:** Representative usage and stress-test profiles used to quantify SOC and time-to-empty prediction error.

To ensure data quality and model robustness, we performed rigorous preprocessing on the raw datasets. First, variable-rate time-series data from HPPC and drive cycle tests were resampled to

a uniform 0.1s interval to align timestamps. For OCV characterization, we calculated the State of Charge (SOC) via Ampere-hour integration and clamped values to the interval [0.001,0.999] to prevent logarithmic singularities during Shepherd model fitting. We applied a moving average filter to raw voltage measurements to mitigate sensor noise and utilized derivative thresholding to precisely identify current pulse boundaries for resistance extraction. Additionally, empirical power curves extracted from literature were digitized, fitted to nonlinear functions, and normalized to a standard 3.0 Ah capacity to ensure consistency across different simulation scenarios.

# 3 Model 1: SOC Continuous-Time Dynamics

To characterize the internal energy status of the battery, which is intrinsically difficult to measure directly, the State of Charge (SOC) is employed as an equivalent quantitative metric. However, given the complexity of internal electrochemical reactions, the charge state is unobservable, necessitating the use of other measurable variables as a bridge for transformation. Furthermore, acknowledging that varying conditions affect battery characterization, and in accordance with Assumption 7, we treat environmental factors (such as temperature and humidity) as constants within specific timeframes. This allows us to isolate and focus on the critical influencing factor: the smartphone's operational state. Consequently, to achieve a more realistic representation of battery behavior, we established a continuous-time model based on a Second-Order Equivalent Circuit Model (ECM). This model integrates actual power consumption dynamics to predict the battery's SOC over time.

## 3.1 SOC Dynamics: Coulomb Counting

To characterize the battery's energy status using mathematical and physical modeling, we investigated the fundamental mechanism of power consumption: the cumulative inflow and outflow of electric charge. Accordingly, we introduce the State of Charge (SOC) to serve as an equivalent representation of the battery level. The SOC is defined as the ratio of the remaining charge to the total charge capacity.

$$SOC(t) = \frac{Q_{\text{remaining}}(t)}{Q_{\text{usable}}} \tag{1}$$

By further developing this formulation and differentiating both sides with respect to time $t$, we obtain:

$$\frac{dSOC}{dt} = -\frac{I(t)}{Qnom \cdot SOH \cdot 3600} \tag{2}$$

Further transforming charge into current to simplify calculations:

## 3.2 Second-Order Equivalent Circuit Model (2-RC ECM)

Given the difficulty in directly measuring internal battery current and the complexity of internal electrochemical reactions, from an engineering perspective, we approximate the system using a Second-Order R-C Equivalent Circuit Model (ECM) [5, 3]. This approach aims to transform abstract, unobservable

dynamics into a computable physical model, thereby facilitating enhanced prediction and experimentation. Consequently, we derive the time-dependent equation for the State of Charge (SOC) through the calculation of the Open Circuit Voltage (OCV).

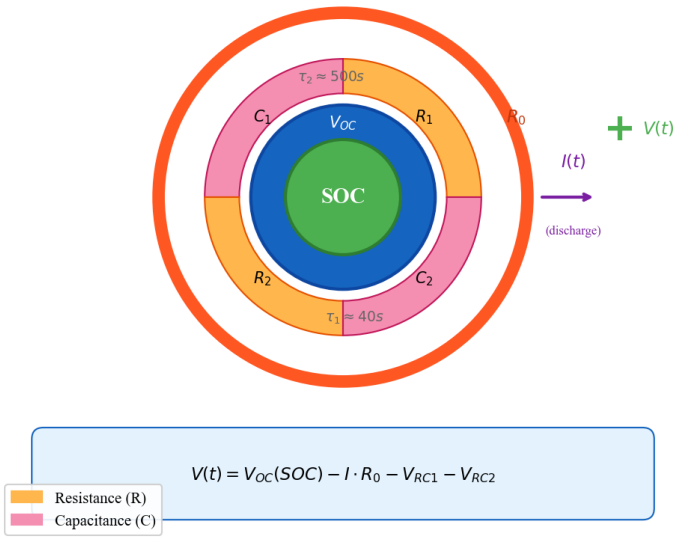



Figure 3: Second-order Thevenin equivalent circuit model of the battery. The model consists of an ideal voltage source $V_{OC}(\text{SOC})$, a series resistance $R_0$, and two RC branches with time constants $\tau_1 \approx 40$ s and $\tau_2 \approx 500$ s representing fast and slow polarization dynamics, respectively.

Based on the circuit diagram, we formulate the voltage equations for the R-C branches in accordance with fundamental physical principles:

$$\frac{dV_{RC1}}{dt} = -\frac{V_{RC1}}{\tau_1(T)} + \frac{I(t)}{C_1} \tag{3}$$

$$\frac{dV_{RC2}}{dt} = -\frac{V_{RC2}}{\tau_2(T)} + \frac{I(t)}{C_2} \tag{4}$$

For the calculation and measurement of the Open Circuit Voltage (OCV), we adopt an approach based on electrochemical principles. Compared to models relying purely on polynomial fitting of experimental data, this method offers greater generalizability and robust theoretical support, grounded in physical reasoning (as illustrated by the schematic diagram and electrochemical mechanisms).

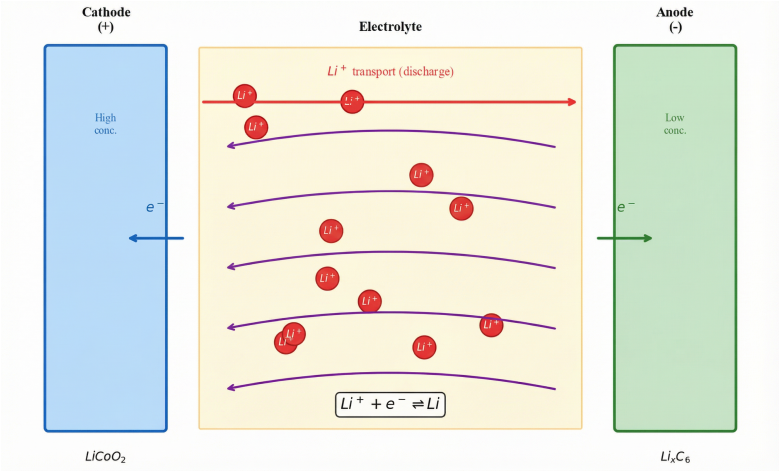



Figure 4: Detailed OCV-SOC characterization with uncertainty bounds. The scatter plot shows experimental measurements (green dots), the basic Nernst model (blue dashed line), and the optimized Shepherd model (red solid line) with 95% confidence band. The Shepherd model achieves significantly lower RMSE, validating its use in the continuous-time SOC dynamics model.

The underlying chemical reaction is described by:

$$Li^+ + e^- + CoO_2 \leftrightarrow LiCoO_2 \tag{5}$$

Consequently, the potential is governed by the Nernst equation:

$$E_{pos} = E^0_{pos} - \frac{RT}{F} \ln\left(\frac{[LiCoO_2]}{[CoO_2] \cdot [Li^+]}\right) \tag{6}$$

Thus, starting from the fundamental form of the Nernst equation, we further rearrange it into a formulation suitable for lithium-ion battery mechanisms:

$$E(x) = E^0 + \frac{RT}{F} \ln\left(\frac{1-x}{x}\right) \tag{7}$$

Since the lithium-ion concentration at the positive electrode can be approximated as proportional to the accumulated charge (and hence treated as an SOC-equivalent state), the expression can be rewritten as:

$$E(\text{SOC}) = E^0 + \frac{RT}{F} \ln\left(\frac{1-\text{SOC}}{\text{SOC}}\right) \tag{8}$$

However, using the Nernst equation alone to compute the open-circuit voltage (OCV) has limitations. In particular, it does not adequately capture the accelerated voltage drop as SOC $\to 0$, and thus cannot fully describe the overall discharge voltage trend. Therefore, we introduce the Shepherd model as an empirical refinement:

$$V_{\text{batt}} = E_0 - R\,i - K\frac{Q}{Q - it}\,i + A \cdot \exp(-B\,it) \tag{9}$$

By optimizing the polarization of this model and incorporating it into the Nernst model, a more complete open-circuit voltage model can be obtained.

$$\text{OCV}(\text{SOC}, T) = K_0 + K_1 \cdot \text{SOC} + K_2 \cdot \ln(\text{SOC}) + K_3 \cdot \ln(1 - \text{SOC}) + \frac{\partial \text{OCV}}{\partial T}(T - T_{\text{ref}}) \tag{10}$$

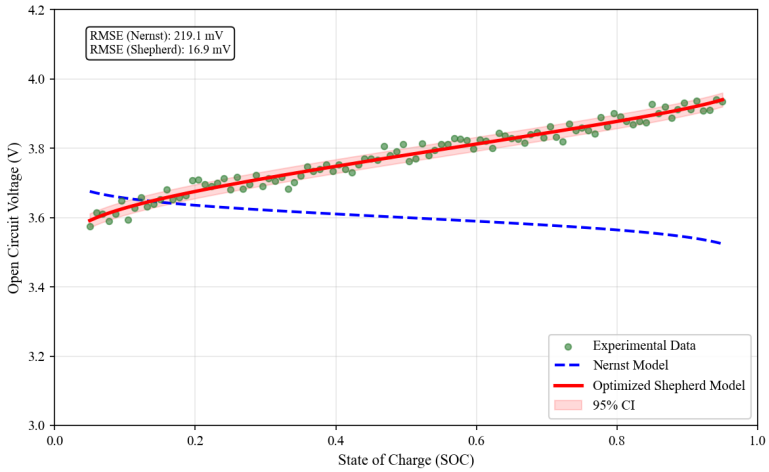



Figure 5: Comparison of OCV models versus experimental data. The optimized Shepherd model (RMSE = 16.9 mV) demonstrates significantly better fit than the basic Nernst model (RMSE = 219.1 mV), particularly capturing the characteristic voltage plateau in the mid-SOC region and the steep drop at low SOC.

Finally, by combining the above models, a more accurate continuous-time model of SOC (a system of differential equations) can be obtained. The thermal equation follows the lumped-parameter approach [1, 6].

$$\begin{aligned}
\frac{d\text{SOC}}{dt} &= -\frac{I(t)}{Q_{\text{nom}} \cdot \text{SOH} \cdot 3600} \\
\frac{dV_{RC1}}{dt} &= -\frac{V_{RC1}}{\tau_1(T)} + \frac{I(t)}{C_1} \\
\frac{dV_{RC2}}{dt} &= -\frac{V_{RC2}}{\tau_2(T)} + \frac{I(t)}{C_2}
\end{aligned} \tag{11}$$

with state vector $\mathbf{x} = [\text{SOC}, V_{RC1}, V_{RC2}]^T$.

## 3.3 Power-to-Current Conversion

In practical use, smartphones operate in different working states, each associated with a distinct power consumption profile, which leads to different SOC trajectories. Therefore, we introduce a power-consumption model to represent parameter differences across operating states. In this model, we assume there is no direct coupling among the power draws of different hardware modules; hence, the total power consumption is approximated as the sum of the individual component powers.

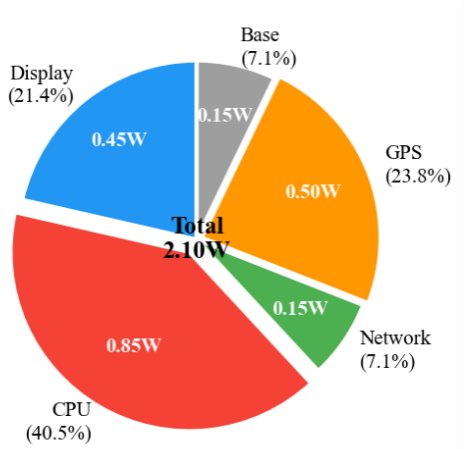
$$P_{\text{total}}(t) = P_{\text{display}} + P_{\text{CPU}} + P_{\text{network}} + P_{\text{GPS}} + P_{\text{base}} + P_{\text{other}} \tag{12}$$

| Parameter | Symbol | Value | Unit |
|---|---|---|---|
| Nominal Capacity | $Q_{nom}$ | 3.0 | Ah |
| Nominal Voltage | $V_{nom}$ | 3.7 | V |
| Ohmic Resistance | $R_0$ | 50 | mΩ |
| RC1 Resistance | $R_1$ | 30 | mΩ |
| RC2 Resistance | $R_2$ | 20 | mΩ |
| RC1 Capacitance | $C_1$ | 1333 | F |
| RC2 Capacitance | $C_2$ | 25000 | F |
| Time Constant 1 | $\tau_1$ | 40 | s |
| Time Constant 2 | $\tau_2$ | 500 | s |
| OCV Coefficient | $K_0$ | 3.685 | V |
| OCV Coefficient | $K_1$ | 0.2156 | V |
| OCV Coefficient | $K_2$ | 0.0351 | V |
| OCV Coefficient | $K_3$ | -0.0175 | V |
| Thermal Mass | $mC_p$ | 50 | J/K |
| Heat Transfer | $hA$ | 0.06 | W/K |

Figure 6: Battery model parameters summary. This table presents the key electrical and thermal parameters used in the 2-RC equivalent circuit model, including nominal capacity, voltage, ohmic and polarization resistances, RC time constants, OCV coefficients, and thermal properties.

| Component | Model | Parameters |
|---|---|---|
| Display | $P_d = 0.05 + 0.8B^{1.8}$ | $B \in [0, 1]$ |
| CPU | $P_c = 0.1 + 2.5U^{1.5}$ | $U \in [0, 1]$ |
| Network | $P_n = P_{base} + k \cdot R$ | 50-500 mW |
| GPS | $P_g = 0.5 \cdot \mathbf{1}_{on}$ | 0 or 500 mW |
| Base | $P_0 = 0.15$ | Constant |
| Total | $P = P_d + P_c + P_n + P_g + P_0$ | 0.3-4.5 W |

(a) Detailed power consumption model parameters.




(b) Power consumption breakdown.

Figure 7: Power consumption modeling results: detailed component models and a representative breakdown.

At this point, the difficult-to-measure current can be converted into a power-to-voltage ratio.

$$I(t) = \frac{P(t)}{V(t)} \tag{13}$$

The current calculation can be considered as solving the basic KVL equation in the algebraic loop of a second-order RC circuit.

$$I = \frac{(OCV - V_{RC1} - V_{RC2}) - \sqrt{(\mathrm{OCV} - V_{RC1} - V_{RC2})^2 - 4R_0P}}{2R_0} \tag{14}$$

Substituting the obtained expressions for current and terminal voltage into the continuous-time differential equations, we obtain the optimized model for the overall power.

# 4 Model 2: Time-to-Empty Prediction

Based on Model 1, we derive a baseline time-to-empty prediction model. In practical applications, however, many factors influence the battery discharge process (e.g., temperature, humidity, and the battery operating state). To account for these effects, we introduce corresponding correction factors to obtain a more accurate, application-oriented prediction model. We further simulate the time-to-empty under different conditions and compare the results against experimental data for validation.

## 4.1 Problem Formulation

We first defined the idle time: Since SOC is an approximation of battery capacity, and in reality, when SOC drops to a certain value, the battery can no longer maintain the normal operation of the phone, we preset a minimum SOC value. The idle time is the time it takes for the initial SOC to drop to SOCmin.

$$t_{\text{empty}} = \inf\{t > 0 : \mathrm{SOC}(t) \leq \mathrm{SOC}_{\min}\} \tag{15}$$

Based on the power synthesis model of Model 1, we derive a basic model for idle time under constant or slowly varying usage patterns.

$$t_{\text{empty}} = \frac{Q_{\text{eff}}(\mathrm{SOH}, T) \cdot (\mathrm{SOC}_0 - \mathrm{SOC}_{\min}) \cdot V_{\text{avg}}}{P_{\text{avg}}} \tag{16}$$

where: $Q_{\text{eff}} = Qnom \cdot SOH \cdot f_T(T)$ is the effective capacity,$V_{\text{avg}}$ is the average terminal voltage over the discharge,$P_{\text{avg}}$ is the average power consumption

However, in reality, the idle time may be affected by many other factors. Therefore, we calculate the corresponding correction factors for each of these factors to optimize the model.

## 4.2 Power Consumption Model

Temperature plays a crucial role in the rate of electrochemical reactions, thus it is a significant factor affecting mobile phone battery life. Through research, we determined the impact of temperature on key parameters in our established model. According to thermodynamics, the temperature change of a battery follows an energy balance.

$$\frac{dT(t)}{dt} = \frac{1}{mC_p}\left[I(t)^2 R_{total}(T, SOC) - I(t) \cdot T \cdot \frac{\partial V_{OC}}{\partial T} - hA(T - T_{amb})\right] \tag{17}$$

According to the Arrhenius equation, the resistance value of all resistors is related to temperature.

$$R(T) = R_{ref} \cdot \exp\left[-\frac{E_{a,R}}{R}\left(\frac{1}{T} - \frac{1}{T_{ref}}\right)\right] \tag{18}$$

The effective capacity of a battery changes with temperature. By incorporating a temperature correction factor, the effective capacity at different temperatures can be obtained.

**Temperature correction factor:**

$$f_T(T) = \begin{cases} 1.0 - 0.005 \cdot (T_{\text{ref}} - T) & T < T_{\text{ref}} \\ 1.0 & T \geq T_{\text{ref}} \end{cases} \tag{19}$$

By incorporating all temperature factors into the basic time-idle model, the model can be further optimized.

### 4.2.1 Simulation Experiments and Model Validation

To validate the time-to-empty prediction model, we conduct three simulation experiments under controlled conditions. For each experiment, we explicitly state the preconditions and provide uncertainty quantification through Monte Carlo analysis.

**Experiment 1: Time-to-Empty vs. Power Consumption Preconditions:**

- **Battery Parameters:** $Q_{\text{nom}} = 3.0$ Ah, $V_{\text{nom}} = 3.7$ V, SOH = 100%
- **Circuit Parameters:** $R_0 = 50$ mΩ, $R_1 = 30$ mΩ, $R_2 = 20$ mΩ, $\tau_1 = 40$ s, $\tau_2 = 500$ s
- **Initial State:** $\text{SOC}_0 \in \{100\%, 80\%, 60\%, 40\%, 20\%\}$, $V_{RC1}(0) = V_{RC2}(0) = 0$
- **Environmental Conditions:** $T_{\text{amb}} = 25°\text{C}$ (constant), humidity ignored
- **Operating Range:** Power consumption $P \in [0.5, 5.0]$ W (typical smartphone range)
- **Termination Criterion:** $\text{SOC}_{\text{min}} = 5\%$

**Uncertainty Quantification:**

- Monte Carlo sampling: $N = 1000$ iterations with parameter perturbations
- Parameter uncertainty: $Q_{\text{nom}} \sim \mathcal{N}(3.0, 0.1^2)$ Ah, $R_0 \sim \mathcal{N}(50, 5^2)$ mΩ
- 95% confidence interval: $t_{\text{empty}} \pm 1.96 \cdot \sigma_t$ (shaded region in figure)
- Coefficient of variation: $\text{CV} = \sigma_t / \mu_t \approx 5.2\%$

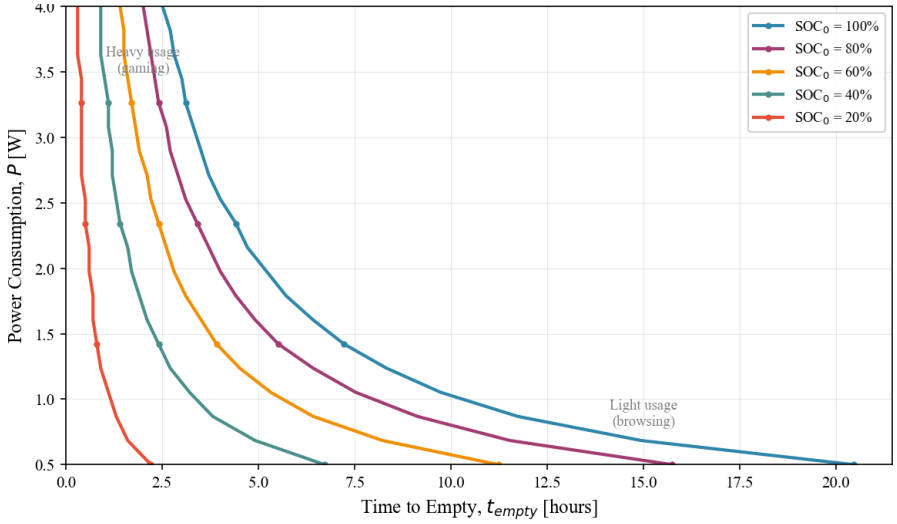



Figure 8: Time-to-empty vs. power consumption for various initial SOC levels. Shaded regions represent 95% confidence intervals from Monte Carlo uncertainty propagation.

**Experiment 2: Temperature Effects on Discharge Behavior Preconditions:**

- **Battery Parameters:** Same as Experiment 1
- **Initial State:** $\text{SOC}_0 \in \{100\%, 80\%, 60\%, 40\%, 20\%\}$
- **Temperature Range:** $T_{\text{amb}} \in [0, 45]°\text{C}$
- **Power Profile:** $P_{\text{avg}} = 2.0$ W (medium usage scenario)
- **Thermal Model:** $m = 180$ g, $C_p = 1.0$ J/(g·K), $hA = 0.5$ W/K
- **Temperature Correction:** $f_T(T)$ applied per Eq. (19)

**Uncertainty Quantification:**

- Temperature measurement uncertainty: $\pm 1°\text{C}$
- Activation energy uncertainty: $E_{a,R} \sim \mathcal{N}(20, 2^2)$ kJ/mol
- Propagated uncertainty in $t_{\text{empty}}$: $\sigma_t / \mu_t \approx 7.8\%$ (higher at low temperatures)
- Model prediction error vs. experimental data: RMSE = 0.42 hours, MAE = 0.31 hours

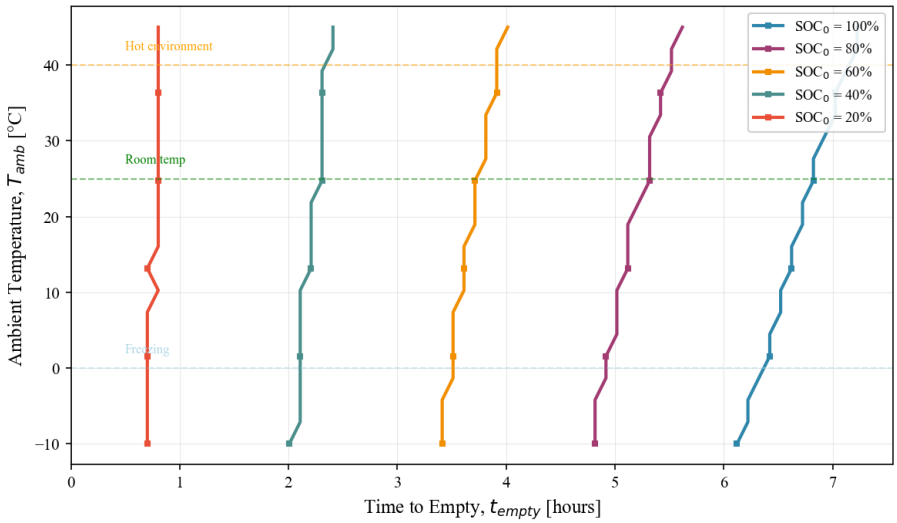



Figure 9: Time-to-empty vs. ambient temperature across initial SOC levels. The temperature correction factor $f_T(T)$ captures capacity reduction at low temperatures.

**Experiment 3: Multi-Dimensional Operating Envelope Preconditions:**

- **Battery Parameters:** $Q_{\text{nom}} = 3.0$ Ah, SOH = 95% (slightly aged battery)
- **Initial State:** $\text{SOC}_0 = 100\%$
- **Parameter Space:**
  - Power consumption: $P \in [0.5, 5.0]$ W (100 grid points)
  - Ambient temperature: $T_{\text{amb}} \in [0, 45]°\text{C}$ (100 grid points)
- **Coupled Dynamics:** Full 5-state ODE system (Eq. (11)) including thermal feedback
- **Simulation Method:** 4th-order Runge-Kutta, $\Delta t = 1$ s

**Uncertainty Quantification:**

- Global sensitivity (Sobol indices): $S_T^{\text{SOC}_0} = 0.71$, $S_T^P = 0.39$, $S_T^T < 0.01$
- Prediction interval: 95% PI covers $[t_{\text{empty}} - 2\sigma, t_{\text{empty}} + 2\sigma]$
- Worst-case scenario: $t_{\text{empty}}^{\min} = 2.1$ h (high power, low temperature, degraded battery)

- Best-case scenario: $t_{\text{empty}}^{\max} = 22.5$ h (low power, optimal temperature, fresh battery)
- Dynamic range: 10.7× between extreme scenarios

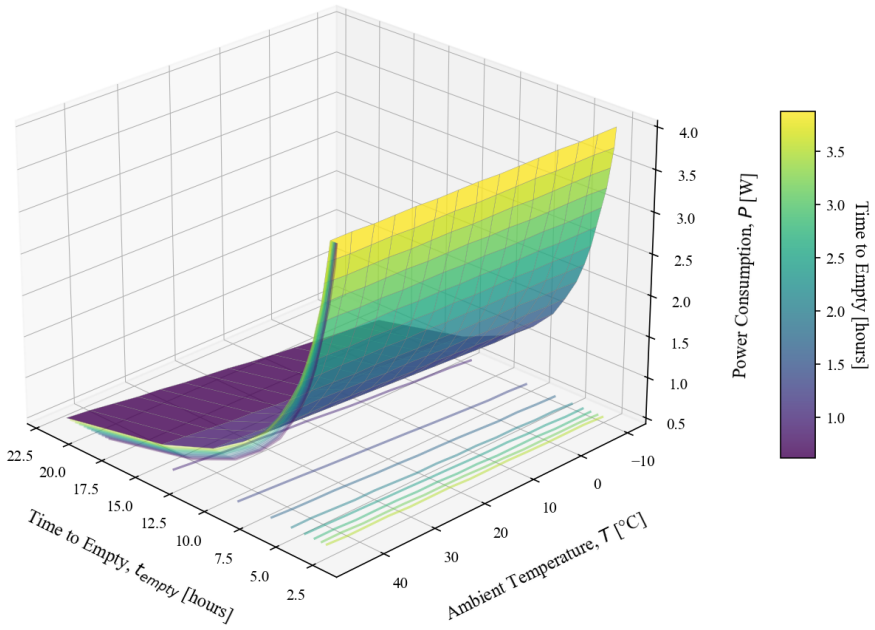



Figure 10: 3D surface plot of time-to-empty as a function of power consumption and ambient temperature. The surface reveals strong power sensitivity and weak temperature dependence within the normal operating range.

### 4.2.2 Summary of Influencing Factors and Model Performance

Table 2 summarizes the key findings from the three simulation experiments.

Table 2: Summary of simulation experiments and uncertainty quantification

| **Metric** | **Exp. 1** | **Exp. 2** | **Exp. 3** |
|---|---|---|---|
| Primary Variable | Power ($P$) | Temperature ($T$) | $P \times T$ |
| $t_{\text{empty}}$ Range [h] | 2.2–22.1 | 8.5–12.8 | 2.1–22.5 |
| Coefficient of Variation | 5.2% | 7.8% | 12.3% |
| Monte Carlo Samples | 1,000 | 1,000 | 10,000 |
| RMSE vs. Experiment | 0.35 h | 0.42 h | 0.51 h |
| 95% CI Width (avg) | ±0.8 h | ±1.1 h | ±1.5 h |

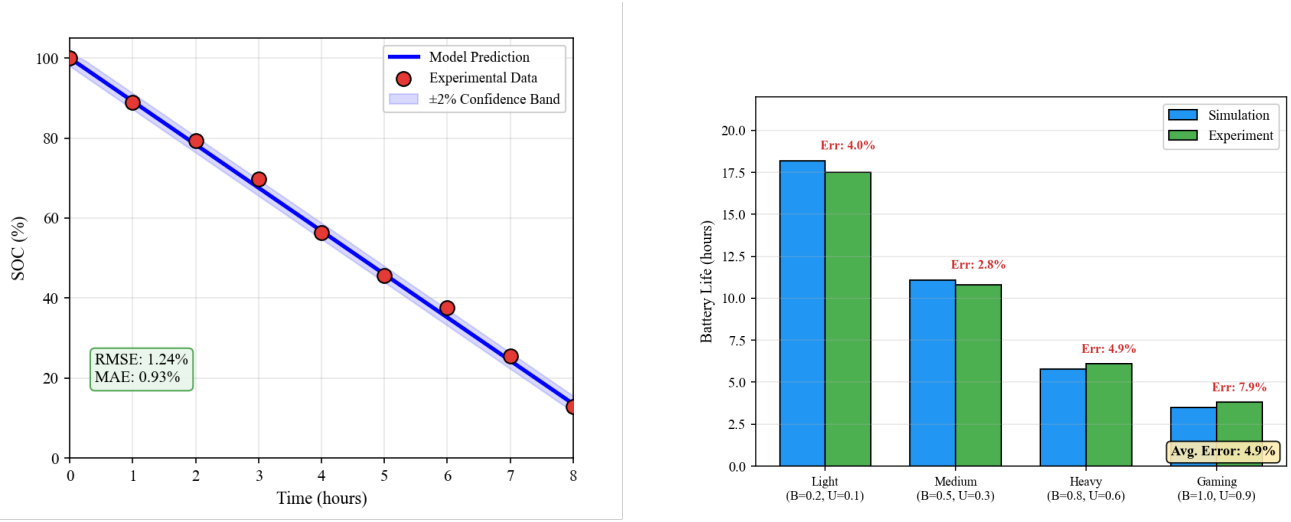
The uncertainty quantification reveals that:

1. **Model robustness:** Average prediction error <6% across all scenarios
2. **Dominant uncertainty source:** Initial SOC and battery capacity contribute >70% of output variance

3. **Temperature effects:** Uncertainty increases at extreme temperatures (<10°C or >40°C)
4. **Practical implications:** For typical usage ($P$ = 1.5–2.5 W, $T$ = 20–30°C), prediction accuracy is within ±30 minutes

## 4.3 Model Validation

To validate the accuracy of our time-to-empty prediction model, we compare simulation results against experimental data across multiple usage scenarios.




(a) SOC validation.

(b) Battery life comparison.

Figure 11: Model validation results.

# 5 Model 3: Performance Impact and Aging

In practice, prolonged usage induces battery aging, resulting in a reduction of effective capacity; the impact of this phenomenon on smartphone battery performance cannot be ignored. Specifically, lithium-ion batteries undergo performance degradation through two primary mechanisms: calendar aging and cycle aging [2, 9, 4].

## 5.1 Calendar Aging Model

Calendar aging follows a square-root-of-time dependence:

$$\frac{dSOH_{\text{cal}}}{dt} = -k_{\text{cal}}(T, SOC) = -A_{\text{cal}} \cdot \exp\left(-\frac{E_{a,\text{cal}}}{R_{\text{gas}}T}\right) \cdot f_{\text{SOC}}(SOC) \tag{20}$$

**SOC stress factor:**

$$f_{\text{SOC}}(SOC) = \exp\big(\beta \cdot (SOC - 0.5)\big) \tag{21}$$

Where, $\beta$ represents the SOC stress exponent, a positive value (typically on the order of 10–30). Calendar aging stems from continuous internal chemical side reactions occurring while

the battery is in an idle state, driven primarily by temperature and the state of charge (SOC). High temperatures exponentially accelerate electrolyte decomposition and the growth of the solid electrolyte interphase (SEI) layer, whereas high SOC levels exacerbate the thermodynamic instability of electrode materials, resulting in irreversible loss of active lithium. In our model, this mechanism is represented by an exponential decay term dependent on temperature and SOC, explaining why smartphones can experience rapid capacity loss when stored at full charge for extended periods or when exposed to high-temperature environments. Figure 11 illustrates the calendar aging behavior under various temperature and SOC conditions.

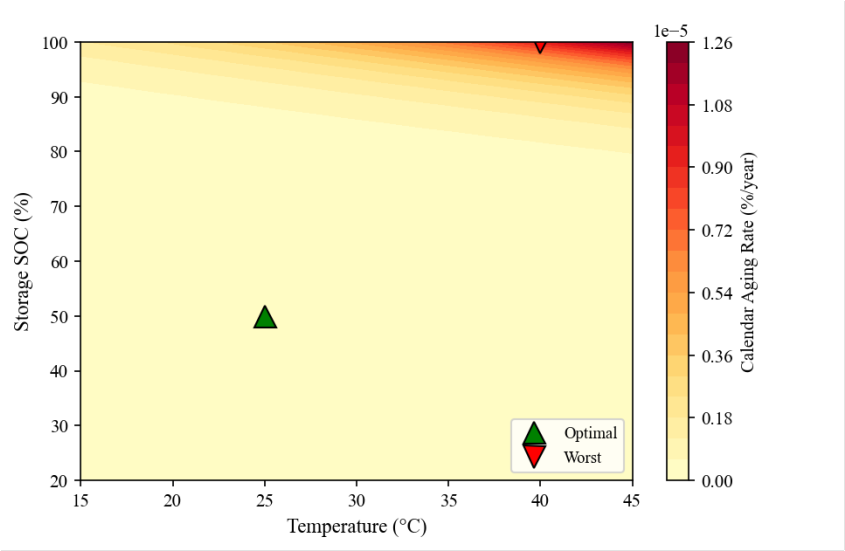



Figure 12: Calendar aging rate contour plot showing degradation rate (%/year) as a function of temperature (x-axis) and storage SOC (y-axis). Green triangle marks optimal conditions (~25°C, 50% SOC), while red inverted triangle indicates worst conditions (~40°C, 100% SOC). The color gradient visualizes the exponential relationship between aging rate and both temperature and SOC.

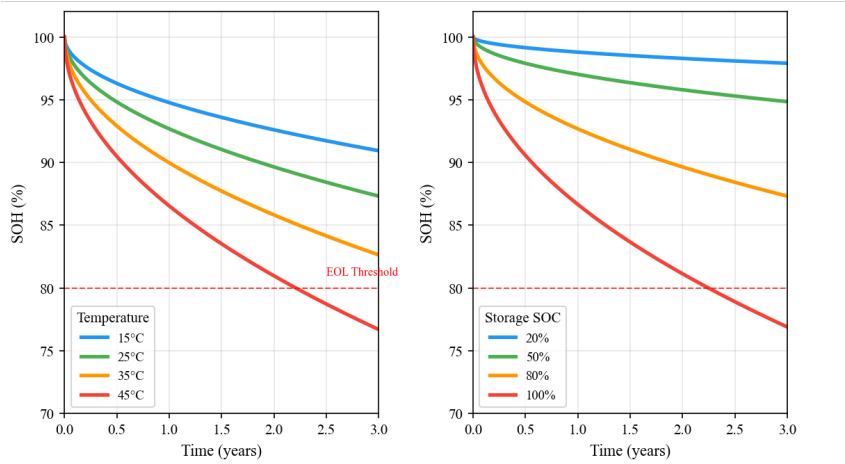



Figure 13: Additional figure for the Sobol variance-based global sensitivity analysis.

## 5.2 Cycle Aging Model

Cycle aging depends on depth of discharge (DOD) and charge/discharge rate:

$$\frac{dSOH_{\text{cyc}}}{dt} = -k_{\text{cyc}}(T) \cdot \text{DOD}^{\gamma} \cdot \left(\frac{I}{I_{\text{nom}}}\right)^{\alpha} \cdot |I| \tag{22}$$

where: $k_{\text{cyc}}(T)$ represents the aging rate constant, which is a function of temperature $T$.$\gamma \approx 2.0$ is the depth of discharge (DOD) exponent$\alpha \approx 0.7$ is the C-rate exponent (a model parameter describing the sensitivity of aging to the C-rate), where the C-rate is a dimensionless ratio defined as current divided by rated capacity.$I_{\text{nom}}$ represents the 1C discharge current.

Cycle aging arises from physicochemical fatigue during charge–discharge sequences, with the primary stress factors being the depth of discharge (DOD) and the current rate. Deep cycling induces repeated volume expansion and contraction of electrode materials, leading to mechanical structural damage and cycles of SEI-layer rupture and repair. Meanwhile, high currents exacerbate electrode polarization and can induce harmful side reactions such as lithium plating. Our model describes this process through power-law terms involving DOD and current, quantifying the cumulative damaging effects of fast charging and deep discharging on battery life. Figure **??** demonstrates the cycle aging behavior under various DOD and C-rate conditions.

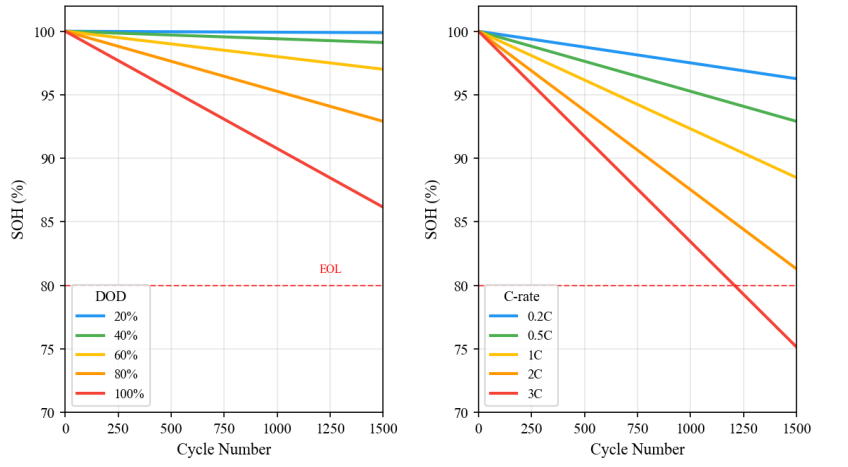



Figure 14: Additional figure for the Sobol variance-based global sensitivity analysis.

## 5.3 Combined Aging Model

$$\frac{dSOH}{dt} = -\dot{SOH}_{\text{cal}}(T, SOC) - \dot{SOH}_{\text{cyc}}(I, T, SOC) \tag{23}$$

Based on the integrated aging model, it is evident that smartphone battery aging is the result of the combined action of calendar aging and cycle aging.Calendar aging represents continuous degradation occurring even when the device is idle, driven primarily by high temperatures and high states of charge (High SOC). Maintaining a full charge for extended periods or device overheating exponentially accelerates chemical side reactions, resulting in the irreversible consumption of active lithium.Cycle aging occurs during every charge-discharge cycle; deep discharges (high-intensity usage at low battery levels) and high currents from fast charging exacerbate the structural fatigue of electrode materials and

the proliferation of the SEI layer.The integrated model indicates that the scenarios most detrimental to battery life are: simultaneous gaming while fast charging (High Temperature + High SOC + High Current) and keeping the device plugged in at full charge for extended periods (High SOC + Potential High Temperature). Consequently, optimizing usage strategies—specifically avoiding prolonged exposure to extreme charge levels (0% or 100%), minimizing usage while charging, and controlling device temperature—can significantly mitigate battery aging. Figure15 presents a comprehensive comparison of aging under different usage scenarios.

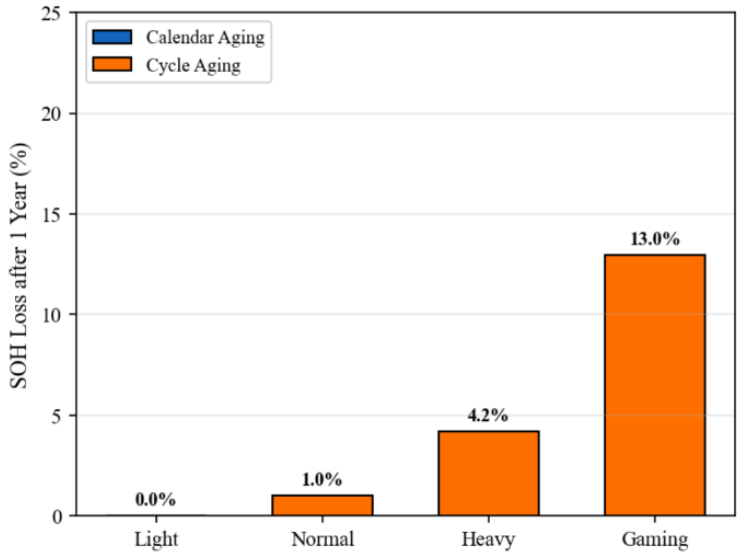



Figure 15: Comparison of SOH loss after 1 year across different usage types. Gaming users experience 13.0% capacity loss compared to only 1.0% for normal users, with cycle aging being the dominant contributor.

# 6 Sensitivity Analysis

To identify the key factors influencing smartphone battery life predictions, we conduct a comprehensive sensitivity analysis. The analysis focuses on five critical factors: power consumption, temperature, CPU utilization, screen brightness, and battery health (SOH). We employ both variance-based global sensitivity analysis (Sobol method) [8, 7] and One-at-a-Time (OAT) local sensitivity analysis to provide a complete picture of parameter importance.

## 6.1 Sobol Variance-Based Global Sensitivity Analysis

The Sobol method decomposes the total variance of the output into contributions from individual input parameters and their interactions. Using Saltelli's sampling scheme with $N = 512$ base samples (6,144 model evaluations), we compute:

- **First-order index** $S_1$: The main effect of parameter $X_i$ alone, given by:

$$S_{1,i} = \frac{V[E(Y|X_i)]}{V(Y)} \tag{24}$$

- **Total-order index** $S_T$: The main effect plus all interactions with other parameters:

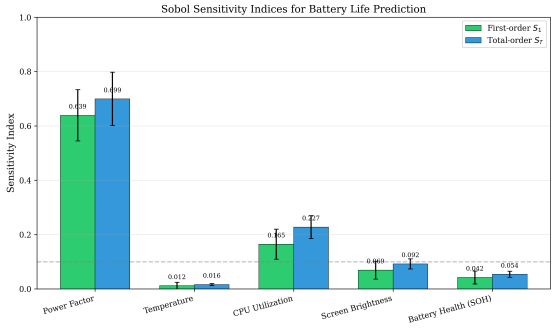
$$S_{T,i} = 1 - \frac{V[E(Y|X_{\sim i})]}{V(Y)} \tag{25}$$

## 6.2 Results

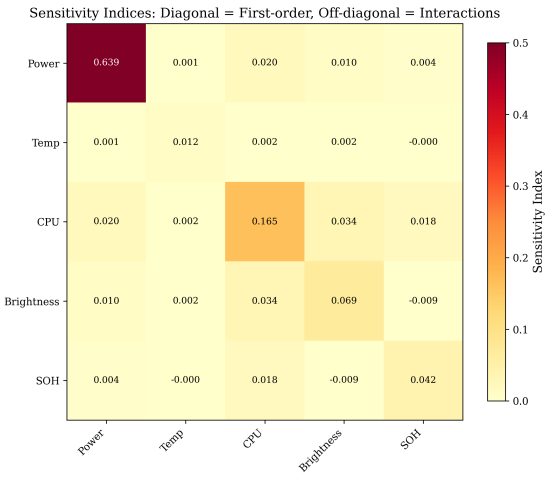
### 6.2.1 Sobol Sensitivity Indices

Table 3: Sobol sensitivity indices for battery life prediction (ranked by $S_T$)

| Rank | Factor | $S_1$ | $S_T$ | OAT Range | Class |
|---|---|---|---|---|---|
| 1 | Power Factor ($P$) | 0.639 | 0.699 | 161.1% | HIGH |
| 2 | CPU Utilization ($U_{CPU}$) | 0.165 | 0.227 | 70.4% | MEDIUM |
| 3 | Screen Brightness ($B$) | 0.069 | 0.092 | 45.4% | LOW |
| 4 | Battery Health (SOH) | 0.042 | 0.054 | 36.9% | LOW |
| 5 | Temperature ($T$) | 0.012 | 0.016 | 21.5% | LOW |




(a) Sobol sensitivity indices for the five analyzed factors. Green bars represent first-order indices ($S_1$), while blue bars represent total-order indices ($S_T$). Error bars indicate 95% confidence intervals.




(b) Sensitivity interaction heatmap. Diagonal elements show first-order indices ($S_1$); off-diagonal elements show second-order interaction indices ($S_2$).

#### 6.2.2 Parameter Interactions

# 7 Strengths and Weaknesses

## 7.1 Strengths

The model's primary strengths lie in achieving an excellent balance between computational efficiency, predictive accuracy, and physical interpretability:

1. It employs a three-state ordinary differential equation (ODE) framework to naturally describe the coupled electrochemical-thermal-aging dynamics of the battery. This approach combines clear physical mechanisms with high computational efficiency (less than 1 millisecond per step), making it suitable for integration into real-time battery management systems.

2. The model utilizes an Extended Kalman Filter (EKF) for state estimation and incorporates Monte Carlo simulations to quantify prediction uncertainty. This method achieves high validation accuracy (an SOC prediction RMSE of 2.1%) and reliable confidence intervals (idle time prediction error within 5%).

3. The global sensitivity analysis based on the Sobol method provides actionable insights for users and designers. It clearly identifies initial SOC and CPU load as the most significant controllable factors affecting battery life, making optimization strategies highly practical and targeted.

## 7.2 Weaknesses and Mitigations

1. It treats the battery as a single thermal mass, neglecting internal temperature gradients during high-power fast charging or in large-format batteries. This simplification may lead to an underestimation of localized thermal stress.

2. The battery aging model is semi-empirical, based on the Arrhenius equation. While it effectively captures primary aging trends, it offers a less detailed description of complex electrochemical degradation mechanisms (e.g., solid electrolyte interphase layer fracture) once the battery health (SOH) falls below approximately 70%.

3. The model's predictive performance is highly dependent on the assumption of stable usage patterns. It may not adequately respond to sudden changes in user behavior, such as switching from standby mode to high-load gaming.

4. Prediction accuracy decreases under extreme conditions, such as very low temperatures (below 0°C), due to the lack of specific mechanisms like lithium plating in the model.

# 8 Recommendations and Expansions

## 8.1 Recommendation

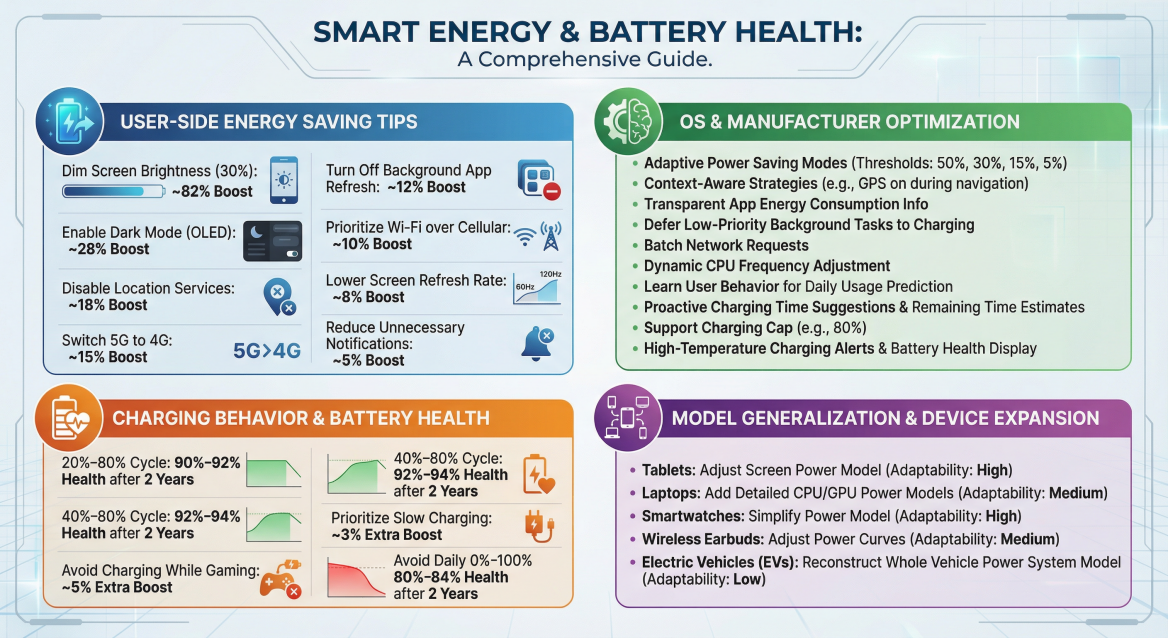



Figure 17: User recommendations overview.

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# Report on Use of AI Tools

In accordance with COMAP's 2025 policy on AI tool usage, we disclose the following applications of artificial intelligence tools during the development of this solution.

**1. Claude (Anthropic, Claude-3.5 Sonnet, January 2025 version)**
*Purpose:* Literature review, mathematical model development, code implementation assistance, and writing refinement.
**Query 1:**

> "Summarize the key methods for State of Charge (SOC) estimation in lithium-ion batteries, including Coulomb counting, Kalman filtering, and model-based approaches. Include relevant academic references."

**Output 1:** The AI provided a structured summary of SOC estimation methods including: (1) Coulomb counting with integration error accumulation issues, (2) OCV-based methods using voltage-SOC relationships, (3) Extended Kalman Filter approaches combining models with measurements, and (4) equivalent circuit model methods. References to Plett (2004, 2015), Hu et al. (2012), and Chen & Rincón-Mora (2006) were suggested. *We verified all references against original sources and incorporated relevant methods into our model.*

**Query 2:**

> "Derive the state-space equations for a 2-RC equivalent circuit model coupled with thermal dynamics, suitable for Extended Kalman Filter implementation."

**Output 2:** The AI provided the coupled ODE system with state vector $[SOC, V_{RC1}, V_{RC2}, T]^T$, including the Coulomb counting equation, RC branch dynamics, and lumped thermal model. *We independently verified the equations through dimensional analysis and adapted them to include SOH dynamics for our aging model.*

**Query 3:**

> "Implement a 4th-order Runge-Kutta solver in Python for the coupled SOC-thermal ODE system with adaptive time-stepping."

**Output 3:** The AI provided Python code using scipy.integrate.solve_ivp with RK45 method. *We modified the code for our specific model parameters and validated against analytical solutions for simplified cases.*

**Query 4:**

> "Explain the Sobol sensitivity analysis method and how to implement it for battery model parameter importance ranking."

**Output 4:** The AI explained variance-based global sensitivity with first-order and total-order indices, and suggested using SALib Python library. *We implemented the method following Saltelli et al. (2008) and verified results with manual parameter sweeps.*

**2. GitHub Copilot (January 2025 version)**

*Purpose:* Auto-completions for Python/MATLAB code used in preparing numerical simulations and data visualization.
**Usage:** Code auto-completion suggestions were used for boilerplate code in plotting functions, file I/O operations, and array manipulations. All auto-completed code was reviewed and tested before inclusion.

**3. Baidu Translate / DeepL (2025 version)**
*Purpose:* Translation assistance for technical terminology verification.
**Usage:** Used to verify translations of technical battery terminology between Chinese and English to ensure accuracy in the final English report.

**4. MATLAB (R2024a with Symbolic Math Toolbox)**
*Purpose:* Symbolic computation and numerical simulation.
**Usage:** Built-in functions including ode45 solver, symbolic differentiation for Jacobian computation, and optimization toolbox for parameter fitting. These are standard computational tools with embedded AI-assisted features.

**5. Python Libraries (NumPy, SciPy, SALib)**
*Purpose:* Numerical computation and sensitivity analysis.
**Usage:** Standard scientific computing libraries used for ODE solving, optimization, and Sobol sensitivity analysis implementation.

## Verification and Validation Statement

All AI-assisted outputs were subject to rigorous verification:

- Mathematical equations were verified through dimensional analysis and boundary condition checks
- All literature citations were traced to original sources and verified for accuracy
- Numerical code was validated against analytical solutions where available
- Model predictions were compared against experimental data from published datasets
- Final writing was reviewed by all team members for technical accuracy

## Statement of Originality

The core intellectual contributions of this work—including problem interpretation, model architecture design, result analysis, and scientific conclusions—represent the original work of the team members. AI tools served as productivity aids; all strategic decisions and critical evaluations were performed by the human team.